

THE POLITICS OF PATRONAGE APPOINTMENTS IN LATIN AMERICAN CENTRAL ADMINISTRATIONS

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FOREWORD

THE POLITICS OF PATRONAGE IN LATIN AMERICA

Trust and Roles in Public Administration

Patronage in the public sector has an unsavory reputation. It is regularly invoked to explain evidence of corrupt or incompetent performance by government or the capture of public bureaucracies by clientelist political parties or ambitious strongmen. It is frequently called out as a cause of poor governance in countries around the world and used to explain widespread deficiencies of growth, equity, stability, and democracy. It is almost always the rationale for reformist efforts to introduce merit-based civil service systems as a better way to recruit qualified and appropriate people to public sector jobs and improve the activities of government. The widespread use of patronage appointments adds to a generalized expectation that where politics in public administration is present, poor choices and misuse of public goods cannot be far behind.

Such easy assumptions about cause and effect, based as they are on ill repute, inhibit the capacity to observe, measure, and understand patronage and its impact on bureaucratic behavior and politics. Stripped of normative expectations, patronage is simply a method of recruitment to appoint people to nonelective positions in government, a method that can be compared with other means of filling posts in the public sector. Treated as such, the presence of patronage appointments can be separated from assumptions about the inevitability of corruption, politicization, or incompetence, as well as its association with partisanship and political control of administrative activities.

As the authors of this important volume demonstrate, when patronage is approached as a modality of appointment, normative assumptions can be replaced by empirical investigations that, in turn, can produce significant insights about government performance and the variety of ways that public policy is designed and implemented. Francisco Panizza, B. Guy Peters, and Conrado Ramos argue clearly that diverse motivations lie behind the use of patronage and equally diverse consequences can be expected from it. They begin by reminding us that when high-level officials make discretionary appointments to public positions, they may have a variety of goals they seek to achieve. Most basically, of course, they want to have people in advisory and administrative offices whom they trust and who have competence to achieve their objectives while in office. But the editors then ask us to drill down on the implications of expectations about trust and competence. Trust to do what, they ask, and competence to achieve what?

As laid out in a lucid conceptual introduction, this book adopts a valuable framework for assessing the type of trust—partisan or nonpartisan—that is anticipated in making discretionary appointments and the type of expertise—professional or political—that is considered to be important in selecting people to fill particular posts. Applying these dimensions to the preferences of those who control patronage, Panizza, Peters, and Ramos use the framework to lay out several distinct roles for patronage appointees. For example, some appointments can be primarily motivated by trust that appointees will faithfully carry out activities representing the programmatic objectives of a political party; others may be recruited because they are trusted to use their professional competence to advance the policy goals of an administration; others might be appointed because they help fill the public sector with partisans of a particular political party and can enhance electoral advantages; and others can be recruited because of their deep personal loyalty and the ability to act effectively for the person who appointed them, regardless of party or professional expertise. Thus, policy commitment, ideological coherence, professionalism, and personal fealty can be as compatible with patronage appointments as are corruption, incompetence, and partisan distribution of public goods. The consequences of patronage choices can be assessed by the extent to which they achieve the motivations that lie behind the selection of certain officials for particular posts in government. When numerous appointments are made with the same motivation, it is possible to assess the performance of the public sector in light of those expectations.

Given the possibility of anticipating performance based on combinations of types of trust and competence, the case studies illuminate their conse-

quences for the activities of government in seven countries in Latin America. The choice of region is an important one—Latin America is arguably home to the political systems that are most often characterized by extensive patronage appointments. Studies of this phenomenon in Argentina, Brazil, Chile, Ecuador, Mexico, Peru, and Uruguay produce some fascinating insights, from the use of patronage to overcome excessive public sector politicization in Argentina to the cementing of party and electoral advantage in Uruguay, to the introduction of higher levels of professional expertise in Peru and Mexico, to role changes in the wake of appointments in Ecuador, to variation by level of responsibility in Chile, to dual technocratic and party loyalties in Brazil.

Patronage as a form of appointment to public sector jobs is found in virtually all political systems, in some cases deeply penetrating the public bureaucracy, in other cases skimming only top advisory and managerial offices. The importance of this book lies in the extent to which it opens empirical space to assess patronage as a form of recruitment and its uses as a mechanism of governance. Those who control patronage appointments may wish their appointees to demonstrate deep personal loyalty, or loyalty to a party program, or to the theories embedded in professional expertise, or to turning out the votes in the next election. Researchers are then in a position to ask how effective they have proved to be in achieving such expectations.

The Politics of Patronage in Latin America presents a clear framework for understanding the causes and consequences of patronage appointments in public sectors that have a long and deep tradition of this form of recruitment to public office. It then adopts this construct in exploring seven well-researched cases that illuminate and deepen the analytic framework. This is a welcome contribution to the literature on the political economy of public sector bureaucracies and the comparative analysis of governance. The volume significantly enriches our understanding of the myriad roles performed by patronage appointees and shows why political systems deeply penetrated by such appointments do not always demonstrate the same consequences for stability and democracy, for the degree of corruption and incompetence in the government, for the policy preferences of public sector elites, or for the achievement of good governance. It is a book that moves the discussion of public sector politics forward in important ways that are empirically refreshing and theoretically relevant.



PREFACE AND ACKNOWLEDGMENTS

This book represents the culmination of a collaboration spanning several years. The initial round of collaboration involved the three editors debating at some length what an appropriate framework for understanding patronage would be. Any number of options were considered before settling on the one used in this book. The focus of our discussion was on Latin America, but the ambition was also to produce a more general framework that would help to clarify some of the misconceptions about patronage appointments in the public sector, and that would facilitate more direct comparison across countries.

Those initial discussions were followed by four meetings of authors for the national chapters. The first was in Montevideo, hosted by the Universidad Nacional de la República. This was followed by meetings at Escola Nacional de Administração Pública in Brasília and at the London School of Economics and Political Science (LSE), and finally by a meeting at the Universidad del Pacífico in Lima. These four in-person meetings enabled the editors and authors to refine the typology being used as the framework for the study, and to strengthen the individual national chapters. And, of course, those meetings have been followed by a number of interactions between editors and authors in order to produce the final manuscript.

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sidad de la República, Universidad del Pacífico, London School of Economics, the University Center for International Studies at the University of Pittsburgh and the LSE-FAPESP fund. We also are indebted to Merilee S. Grindle, who graciously wrote a foreword for this volume, to Daniel Buquet, Daniel Chasquetti, Adolfo Garcé, Jorge Lanzaro, Diego Luján, Juan Andrés Moraes, Hans Jürgen Puhle and Jaime Yaffé for their comments on different versions of the manuscript and to Morgan Fairless and Andreas Sorger for their editorial assistance.

We believe that although this project has taken substantially longer than we might have liked, or expected, the time was well spent. This is one of the few directly comparative studies of patronage in Latin America. In addition to describing the levels and types of patronage, it also helps us to understand why patronage appointments persist in the public sector, and what difference they make for the quality of governance. Although a merit-based administrative system remains the international standard for governments, the reality is that patronage persists, and even appears to be increasing. Therefore, grasping that reality is important for not only academics interested in public administration and governance but also the individuals responsible for providing governance to their societies.

THE POLITICS OF PATRONAGE APPOINTMENTS
IN LATIN AMERICAN CENTRAL ADMINISTRATIONS



INTRODUCTION

THE ISSUE OF PATRONAGE IN LATIN AMERICA

Francisco E. Panizza, B. Guy Peters,
& Conrado Ramos Larraburu

This book is about the practice of patronage in Latin American public administration. By *patronage* we mean the political actors' power to discretionally appoint officials in public administration irrespective of the legality of the appointment and the merits of the appointee. This practice has a long history, including in the (now) consolidated democracies. For example, British public administration prior to the 1870s was heavily populated by patronage appointments.¹ In the United States the "spoils system" associated with Andrew Jackson waned only slowly after the passage of the Pendleton Act in 1883. And this practice has persisted over time, and is endemic in many countries of the Global South.

In contemporary governance, the conventional model of public sector employment stresses the importance of merit recruitment and an absence of political influence over the public bureaucracy. The principle of "neutral competence" is accepted as the standard by which to assess public personnel systems, for both efficiency and ethical reasons (Aberbach and Rockman 1994; Dahlström and Lapuente Giné 2017). The assumption is that hiring and promoting people because of their demonstrable abilities will result in the "best and brightest" working in government and providing high-quality services to the public. These individuals would make their decisions on the basis of objective, legal criteria rather than politics and provide better service to the public.

Scholars such as Merilee Grindle (2012) have pointed out that despite our admiration for merit systems in public administration, patronage remains an important and often successful means of filling posts in the public sector. It is not inherently evil, and needs to be examined carefully, as she did for ten Latin American countries. Her foundational work demonstrates the centrality of patronage for Latin American countries, even in the presence of pressures for change, but also highlights how that change can be produced.

There are two major issues with the dominant focus on the merit system as the standard for employment in the public sector. The first is an empirical problem. This problem is that all administrative systems have some positions that are not allocated on the basis of merit alone. Everyone uses patronage; the questions are how much and for what purposes. Even administrative systems that have prided themselves on being merit based do have some political appointments, and the available evidence is that the number of political appointees is increasing (Hustedt and Salomonsen 2014). And in many countries of the Global South levels of patronage appointments remain high and relatively unaffected by efforts to reform government (Arriola 2009; Grindle 2012). Therefore, these appointments can have a profound impact on governance within these countries.

The second issue is that patronage is not a simple concept or a single pattern of appointing people for administrative positions. Rather, there are many different ways of making these appointments and many different reasons for making the appointments. These differences occur across countries and also may occur even within the same country. For example, an appointee within the Casa Rosada in Buenos Aires or Los Pinos in Mexico City may be there to assist the president of the respective country in pursuing his or her political goals. On the other hand, a trained economist in the Ministry of Finance in either country may be there as a policy expert, not a political advisor. And, as we will point out below, the appointee may be there because of his or her personal connections with a political leader or because of connections with a political party.

Understanding patronage therefore requires careful research. That research must examine the tasks being performed by political appointees, and those tasks must be related to the capacities of the career civil service. We can divide the tasks performed by appointees between those that are primarily political and those that are policy focused, but within those categories there are a number of different roles that the appointees can play. And especially the political tasks should be considered as supplementing or substituting for the roles of career civil servants in governing.

And it also requires a clear conceptualization of patronage, and its relationship with other concepts used to describe the use of political power to control elements of the state. First, we need to place the practices of patronage within a broader understanding of the politicization of the public sector (Peters and Pierre 2004; Neuhold, Vanhoonacker, and Verhey 2013). Appointing people to positions within the public sector is an important mechanism for controlling the bureaucracy, but there are other ways that, though perhaps more subtle, can also be effective.

In summary, studying patronage is important for understanding how government functions in many countries, including the countries of Latin America. Without a clear understanding of the ways in which patronage is used, and its effects on governance, we are likely to make a number of false conclusions about the governments of Latin America. Perhaps most importantly, we may wrongly conclude that patronage is a manifestation of corruption, while in reality it may be a means of recruiting highly skilled individuals to work in government when they otherwise would not.

CONCEPTUALIZING PATRONAGE

We define *patronage appointments* as the power of political actors to appoint individuals by discretion to nonelective positions in the public sector, regardless of the legality of the decision and the merits of the appointee (Kopecký, Mair, and Spirova 2012). The definition does not make assumptions about the motivations for the appointments, the roles played by appointees, their professional capabilities, or the impact of patronage appointments on the quality of public administration. It covers different modalities of patronage that can be distinguished in terms of scope, motivations, and roles and brings together two streams in the study of discretionary appointments, usually described as clientelism in less-developed and transitional political systems and as the politicization of the public administration in Western European and North American systems (Peters 2013).

While there is a tendency in the literature to use the terms *politicization*, *patronage*, and *clientelism* interchangeably, the three concepts are analytically different. *Politicization* is a rather broad concept, and includes a range of mechanisms through which political actors attempt to influence public administration (Peters 2013). It can refer to the selection of appointees for positions in government on political grounds—patronage per se—but also to other, subtler, ways in which political actors attempt to shape the behavior of public servants (Bach, Hammerschmid, and Löffler 2020).

As Kopecký et al. (2016) note, *patronage* includes appointments that are

clientelist in nature as well as others in which appointments are used for purposes besides clientelist exchange. **Clientelism** has been **narrowly** defined as the exchange of public sector jobs for electoral support (Roniger 1994; Stokes 2005; Stokes et al. 2013; González-Ocantos and Muñoz 2017; Hicken 2011) and, more **broadly**, as the particularistic allocation of public resources in exchange for loyalty, services, and political support (Piattoni 2001). While the politicized and discretionary nature of the appointment is a shared characteristic with clientelism, politicians make appointments for a range of motives other than electoral support, such as the need for technical advice and expertise or the use of patronage appointments as a tool of coalition management. Appointees also perform a variety of roles other than electoral brokers. These include, among others, policy design and implementation and the control of the public sector bureaucracy.

Clientelism as a means of providing public jobs for electoral purposes is generally associated with lower-level positions in government, and often in local government. **This book will focus more on higher levels of employment within the public sector, and the selection of employees that may provide some political benefits, but who also may be of assistance in performing the tasks of governing.**

The following implications derive from our definition of patronage:

- 1) The patron's discretion to appoint can result from legal dispositions as well as from informal practices. In virtually all political systems officeholders have discretion to appoint a number of politically or personally trusted personnel. In many countries, however, patronage appointments are regulated by informal rules that sidestep, bypass, distort, or simply violate established legal dispositions outright. As is often the case, and as Grindle puts it, "de facto practice trumps de jure theory" (2012, 145–46).
- 2) The definition considers patrons to be any political actor that has real power of appointment rather than just a legal one.
- 3) Patronage does not necessarily exclude merit as a criterion for personnel selection. Rather, it means that politicians have discretion to choose the criteria on which they base decisions to fill state positions rather than having it defined by competitive examinations. But neither is merit excluded from consideration when making patronage appointments.
- 4) The definition does not make assumptions about the relation between patronage and good governance. We conclude that patronage may have some benefits for governance, and that any normative assessment should consider

the costs and benefits of this practice in each particular political and cultural context.

MOTIVATIONS AND ROLES

Scholars have identified a broad set of motivations other than clientelism for making political appointments. Kopecký, Mair, and Spirova (2012) produced an important study of party patronage and party government in European democracies that was subsequently expanded to cover twenty-two countries from five regions (Kopecký et al. 2016). These studies consider two motivations of patrons: *Control over the formulation and implementation of public policies*, and *reward of supporters for political services*. They also classify the criteria for selecting personnel on professional, political, and personal grounds (Kopecký et al. 2016, 417). They found that the control of policymaking and implementation is the most common motivation for making political appointments, particularly in the low-patronage scope cases of Western Europe. By contrast, in countries with a large scope of patronage, appointments serve both as a control and as a reward function.

However, these studies fall short of providing a comprehensive analytical tool for comparative studies of patronage appointments. Arguably, their classification of modalities of patronage is too narrow to provide enough information about what the appointees actually do when given a position in the public sector. For instance, when appointments are made in order to control the policymaking process, how do appointees perform the task? By giving technical advice to their patrons in the executive, by controlling public sector bureaucracy, or by using their political know-how to negotiate policy initiatives through the labyrinth of power (Campbell and Peters 1988, 84)? The three roles are significantly different and require different skills. When appointments are made to reward party militants, what role are these militants expected to perform? To engage in political activism on behalf of their patrons, to mediate between the ruling party and congress, or to oversee a bureaucracy often regarded as hostile to the ruling party? Again, different roles require different skills. And we should also be aware that patronage can be used to build both party and personal loyalty.

These lacunae take us back to the importance of identifying patronage roles by considering the roles played by appointees and the skills required to perform them. Variations in the number of political appointees notwithstanding, studies of patronage appointments in mature Western democracies tend to concentrate on the roles played by a narrow category of political advisors at the top of public administration. In contrast, in the more politicized

public administrations of developing nations, clientelism has been traditionally regarded as the main modality of patronage, and in many countries remains an important mechanism for gathering electoral support.

However, scholars have been examining motivations beyond electoral gains and in roles other than political brokerage in the study of public administrations in emerging democracies. For example, studies have focused on political officeholders' need for technical advice as the motivation for the appointments of trusted technocrats in administrations with low technical capacity or highly politicized civil services (Teodoro and Pitcher 2017), particularly in processes of radical policy reform (Domínguez 2010; Silva 2009). Other studies have looked at political appointments at the upper levels of the public administration as instruments for coalition management (Bersch, Praça, and Taylor 2017; Garcia Lopez 2015). Still others have looked at appointees' roles as political operators responsible for securing political support for policy initiatives, or as agents of their principals for controlling the public sector bureaucracy and state resources in patterns not entirely dissimilar to those of Western democracies (Scherlis 2012).

Comparisons between countries and regions have centered on differences in scope, often under the assumption of the prevalence of clientelism in developing countries compared to developed nations, where patrons' motivations and the roles of appointees exhibit more nuanced characteristics. In light of the evidence, this assumption is difficult to sustain. By examining the nature of trust between patrons and appointees and the skills required to perform different roles, it becomes possible to elaborate a typology of patronage roles and test hypotheses about the relation between patronage roles, political officeholders, and political parties, and about the impact of different patronage roles on the workings of government, the political system, and public administration.

A TYPOLOGY OF PATRONAGE ROLES

Our typology captures a variety of roles that cuts across modalities of patronage both in high- and low-patronage administrations. We use two organizing dimensions: the nature of trust (partisan or nonpartisan), and the type of skills (professional or political) required from the appointees. When combined, the two dimensions permit classifying patronage roles across different modalities of patronage.

Trust is the essence of patronage. It cuts across other selection criteria and combines with them in different measures. Politicians will normally and naturally tend to appoint people they trust and, given the asymmet-

rical power relation between patron and appointee, appointments usually terminate when there is a breakdown of trust. The significance of trust in patronage appointments is highlighted in a study of special advisors in the British government that states that as political commissars, “advisers serve as the eyes, ears and mouth of the politicians who appoints them” (LSE GV314 Group and Page 2012, 5). And, in some Latin American countries, political appointments are officially denominated “positions of special trust” (*cargos de particular confianza*).

Relations of trust can be based on partisan or on other forms of trust outside partisanship, which are here labeled “nonpartisan.” In the latter we include personal trust between patrons and appointees, appointments made in order to co-opt potential enemies (opposition parties, bureaucrats, etc.), or because the appointee represents some powerful corporate or union interests that the patron seeks to bring on board. The predominance of one type of trust over the other gives information about who has appointment power and, indirectly, about the nature of the political system. While legal power of appointment almost always resides in an executive officeholder, in practice the appointer may just be rubber-stamping the appointment of a person trusted by the ruling party or by some other significant stakeholder, such as a business association or a trade union that has the real power of appointment. The predominance of partisan trust can be taken as an indicator of a strong party government or governmental coalition. Conversely, the predominance of personal trust may indicate a more personalistic political system, in which executive officeholders enjoy significant autonomous power relative to parties.

While different types of trust give indications about the nature of the political system, different skill sets indicate the different roles appointees perform within the administrative machinery and the political system. Some appointees are chosen for their professional expertise within a policy field. While a neutral, professionally qualified civil service is considered important for good governance, democratically elected politicians have a legitimate right to seek advice from politically sympathetic experts. They also can demand that public administration implement government policies in an efficient and timely way. In other cases, appointees are chosen for their capacity to operate politically, which does not mean that they lack technical expertise but that the skills sought by the patron are predominantly political. Political skills are typically required for brokerage between politicians and voters in clientelist patronage arrangements, but they are also required for other roles, even in low-patronage political systems. For instance, political skills are essential for

Table I.1. Typology of patronage roles

		Type of skill	
		Professional	Political
		Party professionals	Apparatchiks: Commissars Party operators Electoral brokers Political activists
Nature of trust	Partisan		
	Nonpartisan	Programmatic technocrats	Political agents: Minders Fixers Electoral agents

Source: Panizza, Peters, and Ramos Larraburu (2019)

media advisors, or to monitor the tenured bureaucracy, or to liaise between executive officeholders and the legislature. We thus produce a typology of modalities of patronage practices combining the two dimensions (nature of trust and skillset), defining four main categories of patronage roles: party professionals, programmatic technocrats, political apparatchiks, and agents, plus a number of subcategories (see table I.1).

Party professionals are appointees that combine partisan trust and technoprofessional competence. These appointees tend to be found in the upper and middle levels of the public administration. Their main role is policy design and implementation. Campbell and Peters (1988, 24) describe party professionals as proactive participants in the policy process who combine a technical grasp of at least one policy sector with a consciously held partisan trust. As they put it, “[these] officials explicitly identify with the fortunes of a specific political party.”

Programmatic Technocrats

Programmatic technocrats combine technical competence with nonpartisan trust. We borrow the term from Silva (2009) to describe independent experts who influence their political bosses through personal trust and specialized knowledge of a policy field. These appointees can, and in many cases do, sympathize with their patrons’ political ideas, but their allegiance is to the officeholder and not the ruling party. In some cases they follow their patrons throughout their political careers in different positions in public administration. In others, despite being appointed by discretion, they become quasi-permanent members of the high public administration, rotating among

different positions of responsibility. In this capacity, they work for governments of different political affiliations, especially in more technocratic types of governments or when the career civil service lacks professional expertise. In some relatively rare instances the expertise of the individual itself is the foundation of trust, assuming that she or he will do the right thing technically.

Apparatchiks

Moving now to the dimension of political skills, in the quadrant that combines them with partisan trust we find the category of apparatchiks. With variations, this category appears in both emerging and consolidated democracies. The appointment of party loyalists to public sector jobs is a long-standing feature of Latin America's politicized public administrations (Philip 2003), in which it is often difficult to distinguish between the ruling party, the government, and the public administration. In European party systems, parties have come to compensate for loss of mass membership by becoming increasingly embedded in the state apparatus, drawing on state resources to maintain and reward their political cadres (Katz and Mair 2009).

Apparatchiks' roles in public administration derive from their political capital as trusted by the party. Within this category there are several subtypes. In their study of European patronage, Kopecký, Mair, and Spirova (2012) found that the main role of political appointees was to control the public administration on behalf of the government. We call this subcategory *commissars*. We use the term *party operators* to refer to apparatchiks who use their political articulation skills to negotiate support for government policy within the party system, particularly within the ruling party or government coalition.² They are mainly found at the upper and middle levels of public administration. They understand the politics of the day, acting as intermediaries within the policymaking process by liaising with members of parliament, interest groups, and other stakeholders. Party operators are particularly relevant when the government lacks a parliamentary majority, and in presidential systems in which the president has low or moderate powers and is forced to negotiate with congress, as happens in the US system (Halligan 2003).

Also within the category of apparatchiks, but at lower levels of the bureaucracy, we find *electoral brokers*, whose role is to mediate the particularistic provision of public goods between governments and voters, typical of clientelism (Stokes et al. 2013). It is likely that this patronage role is more common in service delivery areas and at provincial and municipal levels. Finally, *political activists* at the lower levels of public administration perform no distinct

role in public administration; their main role is to campaign for the ruling party or to act as claquees for the party in political rallies. This subcategory has been identified in Paraguay by Schuster (2015) and in Argentina by Oliveros (2016).

Political Agents

In our fourth quadrant, combining nonpartisan trust and political skills, we identify political agents. The personal nature of trust gives agents little autonomy from their bosses, as they are not protected by party membership. At the higher levels of public administration, the typical subrole is the so-called *minders*. The category fits the profile of a coterie of assistants who act as gatekeepers to their political bosses and become their “eyes, ears and mouth” (LSE GV314 Group and Page 2012, 5). In Mexico, this category of appointees has been traditionally called *camarillas* (cliques; Langston 1994), a term that gives a good idea of the nature of the relationship with their patrons. At the intermediate level we identify the category *fixers*. Similar to party operators, fixers liaise their patrons with the political system to mobilize support for their policy initiatives but, again, their loyalty is to their patron (normally executive officeholders) rather than to the ruling party. Finally, at the lowest levels of public administration we identify the subcategory of *electoral agents*. They perform the same role as brokers but serve individual politicians as mobilizers and activists in electoral campaigns (Mares and Young 2016).

VARIATIONS IN PATRONAGE ROLES

The roles described above are not mutually exclusive. But despite the subtle differences among them, they are also real and have implications for both the comparative study of public administration and the study of the relations of patronage appointments and political systems. For each category of patronage roles the question of the scope of appointments and variations within different areas of the public administration remain beyond the scope of this book. We now apply our typology to varieties of patronage appointments in Latin America.

The various structural and agency factors influencing patronage appointments make it difficult to advance a general explanation of varieties of patronage. Our classification aims to identify the more frequent patronage roles that could be expected to be found in each cell, not to account for all possible patronage roles and every possible explanatory variable. A parsimonious way of understanding these modalities is to relate our typology to some key variables that have the potential to account for significant variation in patronage

roles. The contributors to this book explore three sets of factors that we assume have a significant explanatory power in accounting for differences in patronage roles across the region. These are: (1) party system institutionalization and strategies of party-building; (2) the strength and uses of presidential powers; and (3) the state's bureaucratic capacity and the norms that regulate appointments to the public sector.

Historically, processes of democratization and state building might have been considered equally important explanations (see Bresser-Pereira 2004). However, at the time of this study all the countries involved were democratic and we therefore would expect no variation. However, democratization may have increased the emphasis of responsiveness of government, and hence the desire to appoint more technically qualified personnel than might be available from the career civil service.

Party System Institutionalization and Strategies of Party Building

The study of the relations between parties and the state has been at the center of contemporary studies of patronage appointments. Parties shape the public sector and are shaped by the state. But parties exist not in isolation from each other but as part of systems with variable degrees of institutionalization. An institutionalized party system is a system in which a set of parties interact regularly in stable ways (Mainwaring 2018, 19). In an institutionalized party system there is considerable stability in who the main parties are and in how they behave (Mainwaring 2018, 68), even if some parties rise and others decline and the system adapts to new entrants (Mainwaring and Torcal 2006, 205). Ancillary characteristics of an institutionalized party system are strong roots in society, strong party organization, relatively low number of parties, and low ideological polarization (Mainwaring and Scully 1995). These features tend to require a strong party identity, and a large mass of party cadres—groups of individuals who have influence and prestige within political parties, generally due to the political or technical knowledge they possess—and activists that perform organizational tasks and link parties with the state and their mass constituencies.

Concerning Latin America, the region's return to democracy in the 1980s was assumed to lead to a process of progressive institutionalization of party systems. However, four decades into the third wave of democratization, parties remain weak and party systems are more fluid than they were a decade ago throughout most of the region (Levitsky, Loxton, and Van Dyck 2016). Political change in the region over the past decades includes processes of party system deinstitutionalization and reinstitutionalization, the enduring

appeal of populism and political outsiders, the increasing presence of coalition presidentialism, the emergence of new dominant parties, and the return of old ones.

Reviewing the status of party systems in the region, Levitsky, Loxton, and Van Dyck (2016, 1–2) note that “of the six party systems scored as ‘institutionalised’ in Mainwaring and Scully’s (1995) work on party system institutionalisation, one (Venezuela) has collapsed fully, three (Argentina, Colombia, Costa Rica) have collapsed partially, and a fifth (Chile) has arguably been uprooted. Of the four party systems that Mainwaring and Scully (1995) classified as ‘inchoate,’ only Brazil has strengthened over the last two decades.” Just three years after the publication of Levitsky, Loxton, Van Dyck, and Domínguez’s book, the picture has further evolved, with the Brazilian party system further fragmenting in the aftermath of the “Car Wash” corruption scandal and the 2018 election, and the Argentine, Chilean, and Colombian systems experiencing further transformations.

Parties and party systems are not stable; they are moving parts. In developing democracies parties are often new and may undergo dramatic transformations (Lupo 2016). In order to have a more dynamic picture of the relations between parties and the public administration, we need to complement the study of party system institutionalization (PSI) with the analysis of strategies of party building (Levitsky, Loxton, Van Dyck, and Domínguez 2016). Fluidity may be the result of changing structural conditions that have weakened incentives for traditional strategies of party building and even provide resources and incentives for forms of electoral competition and the exercise of public office that do not require political parties.

Some of the more successful and enduring parties in Latin America were (or evolved into) clientelist-based machines (Levitsky, Loxton, Van Dyck, and Domínguez 2016). Clientelist machines are still important electoral resources throughout much of the region, particularly at local and provincial levels (Levitsky and Murillo 2005, Stokes 2005). But different developments, such as the shrinking of the state as a result of the neoliberal reforms of the 1990s and the need to appeal to broader constituencies, including a growing middle class, have made the building and maintenance of clientelist machines more difficult and costly and the electoral returns of clientelist exchanges more uncertain, particularly at a national level.

Political change has provided politicians with alternative strategies to building party machines in order to contest elections and exercise office. Some of these strategies are not new and they are not exclusive to Latin America, but the weakness of political parties and the volatility of politics in the region

have made these developments more relevant than in the past. In the era of political outsiders, it is possible to run for the presidency without long political careers and resource-intensive political machines. In some countries of the region new parties have bypassed traditional forms of party building by relying on business corporations to provide financial resources, electoral organizers, infrastructure, and distributional networks (Barndt 2017). Businessmen-turned-politicians can draw on their own resources to contract electoral activists and hire political operatives as substitutes for party organizations, as was the case in Peru with Cesar Acuña between 2002 and 2014 (Levitsky and Zavaleta 2016) and, more recently, in Uruguay's 2019 primary presidential election with Juan Sartori (Vázquez and Del Rio 2019).³ The use of social media allows anti-status-quo politicians to appeal to voters without the need for strong party organizations, as was the case of the electoral campaign of Jair Bolsonaro in Brazil's 2018 presidential campaign.

While politicians may not need traditional party organizations to contest elections, they still require trusted personnel to govern. The hegemony of the neoliberal economic model in some countries of the region, such as Peru, Chile, and Colombia, has led to the consolidation of a neoliberal technocracy that provides advice and expertise to officeholders and swap positions between the public and private sectors and between different agencies in the state sector, as has been the case with the public sector technocracy in Peru (see chapter 6). In office, business-friendly presidents appoint private sector executives and programmatic technocrats from business-affiliated think tanks to run the high public administration, as has been the case of President Mauricio Macri's administration in Argentina (see chapter 1).

The ever-shifting patterns of party building and PSI in Latin America raise the question of whether PSI is still an appropriate conceptual lens through which to study political parties and their relation with modalities of patronage in the region. We believe it still is. Differences in PSI contribute to explaining differences in patronage practices between, say, the highly institutionalized party system of Uruguay and the almost totally deinstitutionalized party system of Peru, as shown in the chapters by Ramos Larraburu, Casa González, and Samudio and by Muñoz and Baraybar, respectively, in this volume.

Institutionalized parties tend to privilege partisan over personal trust. While institutionalized parties can, and often do, colonize the state, party organization exists autonomously from the state apparatus, precedes the party's access to government, and survives its demise. Parties with a strong organizational base may use patronage appointments to reward their cadres

and control the public bureaucracy (Kopecký, Mair, and Spirova 2012). Institutionalized parties will also have their own pool of party professionals to advise officeholders in the design and implementation of public policy. This locates patronage appointments in institutionalized party systems predominantly in the upper quadrants of our typology.

In contrast, in weakly institutionalized party systems, politicians mobilize support based on personalistic appeals and are often reluctant to invest in party structures that limit their power and autonomy. Yet, if elected, political officeholders will still need to appoint trusted personnel for policy design and implementation, particularly in countries with weak state capacities. Officeholders will also seek to control state resources for their political ends and gain political support for their policy initiatives. But the nature of trust between patrons and appointees will be personal rather than partisan, placing appointees in the lower quadrants of our typology.

The nature of trust and the roles of appointees, however, are not fixed in time but can change depending on the strategies and dynamics of party building. Politicians that gain office with weak or nonexistent party organizations can use patronage appointments for party building from within the state. They may initially appoint personnel based on relations of personal trust, ideological affinity, or policy expertise. They can also use appointments to reward individuals, business groups, think tanks, or social organizations that have contributed to their campaigns. But as they get entrenched in office, relations with their appointees become more institutional and trust more partisan. In this process, programmatic technocrats turn into party professionals and political agents into apparatchiks, as happened during the governments of president Cristina Fernández de Kirchner in Argentina (Panizza, Ramos Larraburu, and Scherlis 2018) and Rafael Correa in Ecuador (Sandoval, this volume).

PSI has also been associated with high levels of programmatic commitments. Programmatic or ideological linkages are important means by which voters become attached to parties and, hence, by which parties build a stable electoral base that promotes party continuity. However, clientelist attachments can produce the same institutional stability, as exemplified by several traditional parties in Latin America, such as the Partido Revolucionario Institucional (PRI) in Mexico and the Partido Colorado in Paraguay. Conversely, when party systems collapse, policy can change abruptly. Challenger parties and populist political outsiders can have strong ideological beliefs and programmatic preferences, as exemplified by some of the left-wing populist parties in Latin America that disrupted party systems in the first decade

of this century (Philip and Panizza 2011). Thus, whether links with the electorate are programmatic or clientelist depends on the nature of the political actors (both parties and office-seeking political leaders) rather than on the party system as a whole.

It is conceivable that in a given political system some parties' links with voters are predominantly programmatic while others tend to be clientelist. Moreover, in societies with high levels of economic inequalities and class fragmentation, such as those of Latin America, parties can segment their appeal, appealing to certain constituencies on programmatic grounds and to others on clientelist or personalistic ones (Luna 2016), which will require appointees to perform a variety of roles within the same administration. When links between parties and voters are programmatic, we expect patronage roles to concentrate predominantly in the left quadrants of our typology and when clientelist, in the right quadrants. Whether these roles are located predominantly in the upper or lower quadrants will, in turn, depend on the institutionalization of the relevant actors and on strategies of party building. In the case of institutionalized parties with programmatic links with the electorate, we expect to find more party professionals and political operators, as well as more programmatic technocrats and fixers for noninstitutionalized programmatic actors. When links are clientelist, we expect to find brokers and activists in institutionalized party systems and electoral agents in weakly institutionalized ones.

We have emphasized so far the role of political parties and party systems as explanations for different models of patronage roles. But parties are not likely to be the sole or even the main holders of patronage powers. It is our assumption that the actors that control the public administration (executive officeholders) are key actors in the control of patronage appointments. Scholars of the presidency and presidential leadership have paid particular attention to the constitutional and partisan powers of the presidency. The president's control over the rest of the executive branch and the associated powers of patronage is a significant dimension of presidential powers (Shugart and Carey 1992). It is likely, for instance, that in presidentialist systems, such as those prevailing in Latin America, the politicoinstitutional powers of the presidency and the levels of party systems' institutionalization may be the main explanatory variable for who holds the power of appointment. Those powers may, however, be exercised differently depending on the relations between presidents and parties, the makeup of the political system, and the policy areas within which those appointments are made.

The "third wave" of presidential studies has used a principal-agent institu-

tional model to analyze relationships between presidents and parties (Elgie 2005). In well-institutionalized party systems, party organizations are not subordinated to the political career of a leader; they have their own independent status and continuity (Huntington 1968, 12–24). Under these conditions, executive officeholders act mainly as agents for their parties (Elgie 2005, 117). Acting as principals, parties and party factions will constrain and condition the officeholders' power of appointment, as the president's discretionary use of patronage appointments will be limited by the need to use patronage appointments to secure the support of the ruling party, party factions, or governmental coalition. Under these conditions we expect that patronage appointments will be concentrated in the upper quadrants of our typology.

Conversely, in cases of weak party systems or party systems collapse, in which parties are little more than vessels for the president's political interests, the principal-agent relation is reversed, with parties acting as agents for the president, who controls the party or uses the state apparatus to set up and maintain his or her own personalist party. Within this context, parties have little or no leverage over the president and no political agenda independent from that of the executive branch. Acting as principal, the president has a significant margin of autonomy for dictating policy and making discretionary appointments. As the weakness of party systems is normally combined with weak checks and balances, it also gives presidents the power to make discretionary use of state resources, including patronage appointments, in order to advance their own political interests. Under these circumstances, presidents will enjoy considerable autonomy to appoint personally trusted personnel of no distinctive political affiliation in positions of responsibility at all levels of the public administration. In political systems in which the president is the principal and the ruling party the agent, personal trust will prevail, and we expect patronage appointments to be concentrated in the lower quadrants of our typology.

The two models of principal-agent relations between parties and presidents are ideal types that include a number of gradients and margins of variation related to strategies of party building. In the cases of institutionalized party systems, presidents and parties can also act with a significant degree of autonomy from each other. This would allow the president a relatively high margin of autonomy to appoint his or her own trusted personal advisors at the top of the public administration, a situation that is particularly likely to be common in the so-called Centers of Government—that is, the institution or group of institutions that provide direct support to the president or prime

minister. Last but not least, the principal-agent relation can change over time, as parties become institutionalized and deinstitutionalized and leaders face political challenges and problems of succession.

Parties and officeholders, however, are not the only relevant actors in the politics of patronage. Particularly when parties are weak and presidents are not actively seeking to build party machines, patronage may be exercised by other actors such as unions or business associations on whose support the government relies. This individualized form of patronage is built on trust as much as or more than the form based on parties, but trust is “nonpartisan” in the sense with which we use the term in our typology, signifying actors other than political parties.

Last but not least, patronage appointments are important tools for promoting governability. To this purpose, patronage appointments can be used as instruments for intraparty cohesion and for the management of governmental coalitions. While the use of patronage appointments to cement coalition governments is well established in parliamentary regimes, it is also an important tool of governability in presidential regimes. Scholars of presidentialism have argued that in presidential regimes there are fewer incentives for parties to join governmental coalitions than in parliamentary ones, which create important problems of governability, especially for presidents that do not enjoy a parliamentary majority (Linz 1990). However, the recent history of Latin America’s presidential regimes in the 1990s and 2000s has shown that coalition presidentialism is much more common than predicted by critics of presidentialist regimes (Chasquetti 2008; Alemán and Tsebelis 2012) and that patronage appointments have played a significant role in intraparty management and in the setting up of presidential governing coalitions. For example, Ramos Larraburu, Casa González, and Samudio (2016) have shown how in Uruguay, the administrations of Presidents Tabaré Vázquez (2005–2010) and José Mujica (2010–2015) allocated ministerial posts in direct proportion to the share of the votes of the different factions of the ruling Frente Amplio coalition to secure parliamentary support from the ruling party. And in Brazil, which has a highly fragmented party system that requires a multi-party alliance to ensure a parliamentary majority, presidents have made wide use of the power of patronage appointments to secure the support of ideological diverse parties to form large governmental coalitions (Bersch, Praça, and Taylor 2017; Garcia Lopez 2015; Praça, Freitas, and Hoepers 2011; Praça, Odilla, and Guedes-Neto, this volume). When appointments are made for the purpose of building and sustaining governmental coalitions we expect that appointments will be concentrated in the upper quadrants of our typology,

as the parties that make up the governing coalitions will have real power of appointment.

The above explanations for the use of patronage focus on political factors that shape the opportunities to use patronage. The degree and type of patronage can also be influenced by the nature of the bureaucracy itself, and the legal frameworks within which the bureaucracies function. These factors may be important in creating the demand for patronage appointments, as well as in shaping the means through which they are made.

The general image of public bureaucracies in Latin America is not positive. The impressionistic evidence is to some extent supported by objective evidence. For example, the Quality of Governance survey on the professionalization of the public bureaucracy in Latin America shows that the scores for Latin American countries tend to be below the world average, and much lower than the scores of the Organisation for Economic Co-operation and Development countries (Teorell et al. 2022). Likewise, evidence from the World Bank shows that dealing with bureaucracy in Latin American countries tends to be more difficult than in many other countries (World Bank 2022). The legalistic nature of public bureaucracy in Latin America is one of the impediments to creating a more effective and efficient public bureaucracy (see Ramos Larraburu and Milanese 2021). To some degree inherited from Spanish and French legalism in administration, the emphasis on law as opposed to management as preparation for the civil service and as the way to making organizations perform can inhibit performance and make the life of a public administrator in these countries frustrating.

Yet the overall picture of weak bureaucratic capabilities masks variations in time as well as between countries. In the first decade and a half of the current century a number of countries in the region undertook programs of civil service reform of different degrees of ambition and success (Cortázar Velarde, Lafuente, and Sanginés 2014). Summarizing the outcomes, a report by the Inter-American Development Bank (IADB) notes that there has been encouraging progress in terms of the modernization of the civil service in the region, even if it remains at a relatively low level (Cortázar Velarde and Lafuente 2014). And the same report notes that there were still considerable variations in the quality and professionalization of the civil service throughout the region (Iacoviello and Strazza 2014; Kopecký et al. 2016). In the cases of weaker bureaucracies, patronage may be used to strengthen the state in the short run.

Regarding variations in the quality of the bureaucracy, we assume that a well-qualified body of civil servants, particularly at the top of the administra-

tive hierarchy, as is the case in Brazil, could make it less necessary to use patronage appointments to draw technical expertise from technoprofessional outsiders. Concerning the legal framework that regulates appointments to the public sector, we suggest that the rigid and ultralegalistic nature of civil service regulations for appointments and promotions could have divergent influences in the scope of patronage appointments. In countries with a strong tradition of rule of law, such as Uruguay, this could limit the ability of political officeholders to make discretionary appointments beyond those authorized by law. Conversely, in other countries with weaker law enforcement and control mechanisms, it can be used politically to justify the use of informal mechanisms of appointment to avoid expensive and time-consuming procedures for appointment and promotion that tend to reward seniority over merit (see Ramos Larraburu, Casa González, and Samudio and Muñoz and Baraybar, this volume).

These three factors are all important in explaining the levels and types of patronage practices in the Latin American countries studied. There is a host of other possible explanations, but both the literature on patronage and our observations of the cases lead us to focus on these three. Some of these factors are general—for example, the legalistic tradition of administration across the region—while others such as levels of socioeconomic development may vary across the countries. The limitations of space and data prevent thorough discussions of all of these factors, but they can provide the basis for future studies of patronage.

RESEARCH DESIGN AND METHODOLOGY

Measuring patronage is not straightforward, as the exercise of patronage comprises a combination of formal and informal practices (Helmke and Levitsky 2006). An analysis of formal rules, such as laws, decrees, and constitutional dispositions that regulate public sector appointments can give a broad idea of the official number of discretionary appointments. Such a study, however, risks missing a significant number of appointments that are regulated by informal rules that work around or simply violate legal dispositions. In an attempt to get a more comprehensive picture, scholars have attempted to estimate the numbers of discretionary appointments by using proxies, such as increases in the number of public employees or in personnel spending. These indicators, however, are influenced by factors beyond the power of actors to appoint discretionarily and may thus not truly reflect patronage practices (Kopecký Mair, and Spirova 2012; Scherlis 2013).

Informal practices are notoriously difficult to measure with accuracy

and borderline cases often require judgment calls. An accepted qualitative method for measuring the impact of informal institutions on public life is to survey the perceptions of experts (Peabody et al. 1990). For example, this method was used by Peter Evans and James Rauch (1999) to identify features of Weberian bureaucracies in newly industrialized countries. Our research adopts and adapts the method of experts' survey originally developed by Kopecký, Scherlis, and Spirova (2008) and more recently employed by Meyer-Sahling and Veen (2012) and by Kopecký et al. (2016) for their comparative study of patronage in twenty-two countries from five world regions. In order to have a more rounded picture of patronage practices and in an attempt to minimize cognitive and political bias, we drew our interviewees from a wide range of political and professional fields comprising experts with a broad knowledge of the public administration and party systems of the countries in question and key informants chosen for their inside knowledge of four areas of the central public administration of each country selected for this research. Experts included scholars, specialized journalists, trade union leaders, parliamentarians, and public sector consultants. Key informants included active and retired career civil servants, trade unionists, current and former executive officeholders, and politically appointed public sector workers.

We chose four policy areas representative of the central public administration in all countries included in this book: the economy, social development, foreign relations, and agriculture. These areas were chosen on the expectation based on the literature on public bureaucracies that they represent different patterns of bureaucratic professionalization (Peters 1988): more professional in the economy and foreign affairs, more technical in agriculture, and more politicized in social development. The administrative hierarchy in each area was divided into "high" (top managerial level), "middle" (lower managerial and high administrative levels) and "low" (low administrative level, technical and service personnel) tiers, in accordance with each country's administrative scale of public sector positions.

We complemented the questionnaire and checked the interviewees' views against a number of primary and secondary sources. These included government documents, background interviews, Freedom of Information requests, press reports, international surveys, and academic studies. For changes in the total number of public employees we relied on officially published figures. We surveyed legislation and other publicly available sources to estimate the number of discretionary appointments authorized by law.

The countries included in this study were selected to include significant

variation in two key variables: bureaucratic development and PSI. Regarding the former, Zuvanic and Iacoviello (2009) divide the countries of Latin America into three categories according to their levels of bureaucratic development, a category that combines merit with the functional capacity of the civil service. The **top category** includes “countries that have institutionalized civil services with practices that take into account the abilities and credentials of officials and structures that tend to maintain and develop a higher quality of work in the service” (160). **Brazil and Chile are included in this category.** In the second category, “bureaucracies are relatively well structured. . . . However, some of the guarantees of merit management tools that permit effective utilization of the competence of employees, groups, and institutions have not been consolidated” (161). Argentina, Mexico, and Uruguay fall into this category. The third category of countries “have bureaucracies with minimal development. . . . Here politicization is so strong that it hinders the development of a professional civil service” (161). Ecuador and Peru are classified at this level.

Concerning PSI, we drew on Mainwaring's (2018) scores for PSI for Latin America (1990–2015) and on the Varieties of Democracy 2019 index of PSI (V-Dem 2019). While the two indexes rank party systems slightly differently, they both register significant variations in PSI in the countries under study, with Chile, Uruguay, and Mexico as the countries with the most highly institutionalized party systems and Argentina, Ecuador, and Peru at the bottom.

Table I.2 shows the seven countries in this study arrayed according to the levels of PSI and bureaucratic development, using the criteria in the preceding paragraphs. The cases we have included cover five of the six possible combinations of values on those variables. It may be, however, that a Latin American country with a weak party system is unlikely to be able to develop a strong, professional public service. Newly formed and personalistic parties will tend to want to have the capacity to appoint their own officials in order to place their stamp on the government of the day.

The third independent variable did not figure heavily in the selection of the cases. Although there are indeed differences in the powers exercised by presidents in these countries, the differences are often subtle (Morgenstern, Polga-Hecimovich, and Shair-Rosenfield 2013). The several dimensions of presidential power—for example, relationships with congress, exposure to impeachment, power over the courts—make clearly identifying more powerful *official* powers of the president difficult, and identifying the informal powers is even more difficult still.

Table 1.2. Countries’ classification by party-system institutionalization and levels of bureaucratic development

		Party-system institutionalization	
		Low	High
Bureaucratic development	High	Brazil	Chile
	Medium	Argentina	Mexico Uruguay
	Low	Ecuador Peru	

Source: Authors’ elaboration with data from V-Dem (2019) and Zuvanic and Iacoviello (2009)

THE COUNTRY STUDIES

This volume consists of seven chapters each focusing on one country, and a concluding chapter that brings together the findings and relates them to our framework for analysis. There was no clear theoretical or analytic variable that could be used to order the chapters, so we opted to arrange the chapters alphabetically, beginning with Argentina and concluding with Uruguay.

Argentina has for a long time had a weak civil service system and a great deal of patronage in government. Mercedes Llano shows, however, that the nature of that patronage has changed and has become increasingly technocratic, given the weakening of the political party system. The Brazilian patronage system also has technocratic elements, and is linked to some extent to the formal personnel system of the country. Sérgio Praça, Fernanda Odilla, and João V. Guedes-Neto demonstrate the changes in patronage that have occurred from the end of President Luiz Inácio “Lula” Da Silva’s government through to the end of President Dilma Rousseff’s, and the role that changing politics during this period had on public personnel.

Chile has had perhaps the most professionalized civil service system among these seven countries, but patronage appointments have been increasingly important. Emilio Moya Díaz and Victor Garrido demonstrate that the influence of parties over appointments in government has been declining, and the power of the president has been increasing. That pattern of presidential power in appointments is even clearer in Ecuador, because of the weak party system and more personalist regimes of presidents. Cecilia Sandoval demonstrates the strong role of presidential appointments, but also that the appointments being made often are individuals with necessary technical skills for making policy.

The upper levels of the government employment in Mexico have long been dominated by patronage appointments, even after significant attempts at administrative reform. Mauricio Dussauge-Laguna and Alberto Casas document the importance of patronage appointments and the links to party and individuals in Mexico. The system of public employment in Peru is somewhat similar to that of Ecuador, given the absence of an effective civil service system and a very weak party system. Paula Muñoz and Viviana Baraybar demonstrate the importance of the appointed officials for governance, and the strong role of personal trust in making the appointments. Finally, Uruguay has the most institutionalized party system among this group of countries, and that party system is important in selecting individuals for important positions in government. Conrado Ramos Larraburu, Mauro Casa González, and Tamara Samudio show how the use of patronage appointments is linked to a civil service system that is becoming more institutionalized.



This study of patronage in Latin America creates a typology of patronage. In so doing, we are pointing out that what may appear to be similar cases are in fact different, and have very different political dynamics. Further, we are pointing out that patronage may contribute to the quality of governance, perhaps especially when there is a weak civil service system. While we cannot test in any definitive manner for the links between patronage and variables such as institutionalization of the party system and the nature of the bureaucracy and presidency in these countries, the evidence coming from the country case studies does provide important insights. We identify patterns of patronage and governance that are important for understanding governance not only in Latin America but also in other parts of the world with extensive patronage systems.

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CONCLUSION

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The contributors to this book have sought to answer a number of key questions about patronage appointments in Latin America's central public administrations (CPAs): What is the scope of patronage appointments in the CPAs of the countries of the region? Which political actors have real power of appointment? What is the nature of the relation of trust between patrons and appointees? What are the political actors' motivations when making discretionary appointments, what skills do patrons prioritize in appointees, and what roles do appointees play within the public administration? And, what explains variations in the scope and nature of patronage appointments? In answering these questions we have sought to better understand the relations between patronage, political parties, officeholders, and the public administration.

MAIN FINDINGS

All of the countries covered by the studies here registered significant levels of patronage appointments, as defined in the introduction to this book. However, we did not find evidence of mass clientelism in the CPAs. Patronage appointments were particularly high at the top and mid-levels of the administrative hierarchy and less so at lower levels. At the very top level, all or nearly all appointments were discretionary, as positions at this level are typically considered "positions of trust" (*cargos de confianza*) to which officeholders

can legally appoint and fire people at will. There was more variance in scope further down the managerial ladder but in most countries respondents to the survey who were used as sources of evidence for this book considered that “a significant number” or “nearly all” appointments at upper-middle and mid-level management were also discretionary, even in administrations in which these jobs were supposed to be filled following formal rules of promotion or open competition.

There may be a number of reasons for relatively low number of patronage appointments down the administrative hierarchy (typically supervisory, clerical, and service jobs). In some countries, such as Mexico, lower administrative and service jobs are effectively controlled by the unions and protected by tenure. But even in countries in which lower-level appointments were largely discretionary, as a general rule ministers were not routinely involved in the appointments, as they did not regard positions at these levels as particularly relevant to their ministerial work or political interests. Moreover, while these jobs can be used to reward grassroots political brokers, brokerage may be more dominant at provincial and municipal level (Stokes et al. 2013). Appointments at lower levels were subject to a variety of formal and informal recruitment processes. In a number of countries they were made by mid-level public sector managers using informal criteria for recruitment, such as the recommendation of family members from public sector workers under their supervision.

POWER OF APPOINTMENT

Our research sought to establish who had real power of appointment, as distinct from legal power. In the majority of the CPAs covered by the studies in this book, the real power of appointment lies with executive officeholders (normally the president and ministers or deputy ministers). All the countries covered in this volume are presidentialist regimes, and, as Praça, Odilla, and Guedes-Neto put it in relation to Brazil—though it also applies to other countries covered by this study—the president is the highest-level patron. Presidents exercised power of appointment either directly or by being consulted by ministers, but the scope and modalities of the presidents’ involvement in the appointment process varied from country to country. Moreover, presidents faced a number of practical and political restrictions that limited their direct involvement in patronage appointments. Rather than being involved in wholesale appointments, presidents used their power of appointment selectively and strategically to control key areas of the administration or to further political support and delegated most appointments to ministers, while main-

taining veto power over appointments made by ministers and other political actors.

The president's use of his or her power of appointment was typically stronger at the top of the public administration's hierarchy but diminished substantially at middle and lower levels. Presidents exercised their power of appointment more significantly in Ecuador, Chile, Mexico, and Argentina than in Brazil, Peru, and Uruguay. The president's power of appointment was especially strong in Ecuador, where almost half of the informants stated that President Rafael Correa made appointments on his own and a further 40 percent stated that ministers consulted the president when making high-level appointments. Moreover, the personalistic nature of Correa's presidency and the control he held over the ruling party, Alianza PAIS, made difficult to differentiate the president from the party. As an interviewee put it: "Correa was the party" (Sandoval, this volume). Presidents also exercised significant power of appointment in Chile, a trend that has intensified since the first administration of president Michelle Bachelet in 2006–2010 (Moya Díaz and Garrido, this volume). In Mexico, President Enrique Peña Nieto was usually consulted by the secretaries of state when they made appointments at the top levels of the administrative hierarchy. In Argentina, the low degree of autonomy of the ruling Propuesta Republicana (PRO) party vis-à-vis president Mauricio Macri, and, more generally, the executive branch's control over the governmental coalition, gave the president ample room for making discretionary appointments. In Brazil, presidential control over high-level appointments was usually delegated to the president's chief of staff. While the chief of staff signed the highest-level appointments, reforms passed by President Jair Bolsonaro in 2019 gave more autonomy to ministers for nominations below that level. Candidates for high-level appointments were often selected by the executive secretary of the ministry in question that in turn delegated to the holders of these positions appointments at lower levels of the managerial hierarchy. Yet the president still has the power to make appointments and dismissal of any high-level managers at any time (Praça, Odilla, and Guedes-Neto, this volume).

Parties generally exercised limited power of appointment. The parties' rather low influence over patronage appointments was in line with a region in which parties have low levels of organization, weak roots in society, a limited number of party cadres, and low levels of institutionalization (Mainwaring and Scully 1995, Mainwaring 2018). However, there were some variations across countries. An extreme case was Peru, a country in which parties are typically empty shells for presidential candidates, have no permanent

cadres or internal organization, and show short lifespans (Levitsky 2018). In contrast, in Uruguay, officeholders' consultation with the ruling party at the time, the Frente Amplio, was the norm, reflecting the highly institutionalized nature of the country's party system (Kitschelt et al. 2010; Panizza, Ramos Larraburu, and Scherlis 2018; Ramos Larraburu, Casa González, and Samudio, this volume). Political parties also had power of appointment in Chile, a country that together with Uruguay has comparatively high levels of party institutionalization (Mainwaring 2018). However, in Chile parties have been losing power of appointment in favor of the president since the country's return to democracy, as the political system has become more personalistic and governance more technocratic. In Mexico, the ruling party at the time of the survey, the Partido Revolucionario Institucional (PRI), historically controlled appointments and colonized the state, but the party has lost centrality since the country's democratization in the 2000s. However, the PRI still retained some limited power of appointment in the administration of President Peña Nieto, 2012–2018 (Dussauge-Laguna and Casas, this volume). In Argentina, parties that were part of the ruling multiparty governmental coalition Cambiemos, under the administration of President Macri (2015–2019), exercised limited power of appointment in the ministries under their control (Llano, this volume). In Brazil, parties and individual congressmen exercised influence by submitting candidates' names to ministers or to the chief of staff of the presidency to be appointed in exchange for congressional support (Praça, Odilla, and Guedes-Neto, this volume).

Social movements, think tanks, and interest groups, such as business organizations and trade unions, had little direct power of appointment, although in some countries nonstate actors indirectly influenced appointments or provided pools of candidates for discretionary appointments. In some countries, social actors influenced appointments indirectly by being consulted by ministers when those ministers were making appointments in areas of activity related to their interests, social influence, or professional expertise. This was historically the case in Ecuador, where traditionally farmers' associations influenced appointments in the Ministry of Agriculture and doctors and health workers' associations influenced appointments in the Ministry of Health, although their influence waned under President Correa. However, during Correa's presidency, the Ministry of Social Inclusion opened political quotas for guilds of afro-Ecuadorians, indigenous women, and LGBT groups (Sandoval, this volume). In Brazil, representatives of interest groups and/or regional groups that were well represented in congress also acted as informal

patrons depending on the level of their political influence (Praça, Odilla, and Guedes-Neto, this volume). In Mexico, social actors exercised some limited influence in patronage appointments. Among the actors that had more weight in the appointment process were business organizations (particularly in the tourism sector), family networks, nongovernmental organizations, and trade unions (Dussauge-Laguna and Casas, this volume).

In other countries think tanks and technocratic networks were particularly influential in providing pools of candidates for technoprofessional appointments. Technocratic networks were particularly strong in Peru, where technocrats often held ministerial positions and rotated among certain areas. For example, many technocrats moved from the Ministry of Economy to the Ministry of Social Development to the Ministry of Education, and so on. Technocratic networks controlled the higher echelons of the public administration and were often delegated power of appointment by ministers (Muñoz and Baraybar, this volume). In Chile, the power of appointment of technocratic networks was more indirect, as governments drew personnel from think tanks aligned with the government's policy preferences (Moya Díaz and Garrido, this volume). And in Mexico academic networks from top private universities were regarded as relevant actors in the appointment process (Dussauge-Laguna and Casas, this volume).

TRUST

Trust is of the essence of patronage everywhere but is particularly important in Latin America, where, as a rule, officeholders have little trust in civil servants' political neutrality and technical capacity. As outlined in the introduction, we consider the distinction between partisan and nonpartisan trust as an indicator of the parties' organizational strength and political influence. In the majority of countries covered by our study most appointments were based on "nonpartisan" (mainly personal) trust. However, partisan trust played a significant role in patronage appointments in Uruguay and to a lesser extent in Chile, two of the countries with the more institutionalized party systems (Ramos Larraburu, Casa González, and Samudio; and Moya Díaz and Garrido, both this volume).

Trust, however, can shift from the nonpartisan to the partisan, as appointees may join the public administration on a relation of nonpartisan trust with officeholders but become organically linked to the ruling party during the course of their appointment. Ecuador was a case in point, as to be politically aligned with the government was regarded as a requirement for pro-

motion and even for keeping the job (Sandoval, this volume). A similar trajectory was evident in Argentina under the Kirchners (Panizza, Ramos, and Scherlis 2018). In Brazil, where civil servants promotion to high managerial positions is at the discretion of officeholders, some civil servants affiliated to the president's or a minister's party to increase their chances of promotion (Praça, Odilla, and Guedes-Neto, this volume). In Mexico, during the years of hegemony of the PRI, partisan and nonpartisan trust were largely superimposed, as appointees had links to the ruling PRI party and also belonged to politicobureaucratic networks (known as *camarillas*) built on the basis of personal trust with officeholders. More recently, however, the weakening of partisan loyalties has tilted the balance toward nonpartisan (personal) trust (Dussauge-Laguna and Casas, this volume). Nonpartisan trust was also dominant in Peru, where the weakness of the party system made partisan trust nonexistent and appointments were based on networks of personal trust and on the technical expertise of the appointee.

MOTIVATIONS, SKILLS, AND ROLES

In the introduction to this volume we identified a broad set of motivations that patrons may have for making patronage appointments, among these the pursuit of technoprofessional advice and expertise, controlling the public sector bureaucracy and resources, engaging in political articulation, and rewarding party cadres. The case studies showed that in all countries covered by the studies in this volume, the quest for technoprofessional expertise for policy design and implementation was the main motivation for patronage appointments by a considerable margin, particularly at the top levels of the public administration. Two further motivations, "control of the public administration" and "political articulation" were also mentioned, particularly at the midmanagerial level. "Rewarding militants" was mentioned as a significant motivation only in Uruguay and Chile, countries in which political parties tend to have a larger pool of party cadres than in other countries of the region. In the case of Chile, this was particularly the case at lower levels of the administration (Moya Díaz and Garrido, this volume). This does not mean that politicians do not use their power of appointment to reward militants; it, rather, challenges the conventional wisdom about patronage being just "jobs for the boys" (Grindle 2012). Even when rewarding militants, patrons appoint them to perform certain roles within the public administration.

As was the case with other questions, the broad picture shadows variations between and within countries. In Brazil, that is the clearest case of coalition presidentialism in the region, presidents used patronage appointments

to hold governmental coalitions together. In Argentina, the administration of President Macri used discretionary appointments to discipline and depoliticize a public sector bureaucracy that was regarded as hyperpoliticized during the administrations of Néstor Kirchner (2003–2007) and Cristina Fernández de Kirchner (2007–2011, 2011–2015). But discipline (coded as “control” in the survey) was to be achieved by the appointees’ supposedly higher managerial skills and professional expertise, rather than through direct partisan control (Llano, this volume). Control over the public administration and the ability to act as intermediaries between their political patrons and other political actors (such as congress and the ruling party) to secure support for the executive’s policy initiatives were significant motivations in Uruguay, leading to the appointment of relatively large number of apparatchiks (Ramos Larraburu, Casa González, and Samudio, this volume). Political articulation was also mentioned as a motivation in Chile and Peru. But while in Chile political articulation was related to the goal of securing political support for policies within the ruling coalition, in Peru the main purpose of political articulation was interadministration coordination between the public administration’s technocratic elites, specially between sectors and levels of government (Moya Díaz and Garrido; Muñoz and Baraybar, both this volume).

The motivations patrons have for making patronage appointments determine the roles appointees play and the skills required to perform said roles, as described in the typology outlined in the introduction to this volume. The roles grouped in the left quadrants of the typology, defined by the prioritization of technoprofessional skills, were dominant in all countries. Programmatic technocrats, a category that combines technoprofessional skills with nonpartisan trust, was the dominant role in all countries with the exception of Uruguay, in which party professionals, a category that combines technoprofessional expertise with partisan trust, was the most cited (Ramos Larraburu, Casa González, and Samudio). According to the survey, in Chile, party professional was the second-most-common role after programmatic technocrats (Moya Díaz and Garrido, this volume). In Argentina, programmatic technocrat (CEOs and management experts recruited from the private sector) was identified as the main role, followed by party professional, a category that mainly included professionals linked to Macri’s ruling party, the PRO, which worked with Macri when he was the mayor of Buenos Aires (Llano, this volume). In Ecuador, in some cases the roles performed by appointees evolved during the course of their appointments: professionals that joined the administration as programmatic technocrats turned into party professionals

as they became organically linked to the ruling party (Sandoval, this volume). In Brazil, programmatic technocrats were mainly senior civil servants discretionarily appointed to managerial to positions of trust. However, while formally politically independent from the parties that formed the ruling coalition, some senior civil servants had informal links with the coalition parties or with individual members of congress who lobbied for their appointment. In Mexico, the twin processes of democratization and neoliberal economic modernization shifted the balance decisively toward programmatic technocrats over party professionals that were more characteristic of the predemocratization era of PRI hegemony (Dussauge-Laguna and Casas, this volume). Something similar happened in Peru, where programmatic technocrats appointed on the basis of personal trust dominated the CPA, and party professionals were almost nonexistent (Muñoz and Baraybar, this volume).

The importance of technoprofessional skills and the predominance of programmatic technocrats over party professionals may be accounted for by three mutually reinforcing explanations. First is the importance attributed by executive officeholders to delivering their policy commitments and to maintaining support from voters. Second is the executive officeholders' lack of trust in the capability and political responsiveness of civil servants, and third, the parties' lack of a large enough pool of party cadres with technoprofessional skills to cover demand for professionally qualified personnel.

The overall picture concerning roles defined by the predominance of political skills was more varied. As expected, apparatchiks were dominant among politically skilled appointees in Uruguay (Ramos Larraburu, Casa González, and Samudio, this volume) and were also identified in Chile (Moya Díaz and Garrido, this volume) and Ecuador, a country in which the distinction between partisan and nonpartisan trust was difficult to be established with any clarity (Sandoval, this volume). In Brazil, both political agents and apparatchiks were identified within the federal administration, with an overall predominance of political agents, particularly in the administration of President Bolsonaro. The relative importance of political agents in Brazil may be accounted for by the complex politics of coalition presidentialism and the weakly institutionalized nature of most parties. In Argentina, the government of President Macri's appointed technocrats to perform the politically skilled role of commissar, which led Llano (this volume) to coin the hybrid term "technocratic commissars" to define their role. In both Mexico and Peru political agents and apparatchiks appeared to be less well represented (Dussauge-Laguna and Casas; Muñoz and Baraybar, both this volume).

Table C.1. Party system institutionalization scores, 1990–2015

Ranking	Country	Score
1	Uruguay	1.16
2	Mexico	1.09
3	Chile	0.90
4	Brazil	0.48
5	Ecuador	–0.78
6	Argentina	–0.81
7	Peru	–1.16

Source: Mainwaring (2018, 58)

Table C.2. V-Dem party system institutionalization index 2019

Country	Score
Chile	0.96
Uruguay	0.93
Mexico	0.84
Brazil	0.73
Argentina	0.69
Ecuador	0.47
Peru	0.35

Source: Created by the authors from data from V-Dem 2019 Survey

EXPLAINING VARIATIONS IN PATRONAGE ROLES

In the introduction to this book we identified three main explanatory variables: (1) Party system institutionalization and strategies of party building; (2) the strength and uses of presidential powers; and (3) the state's bureaucratic capacity and the norms that regulate appointments to the public sector. The findings of our case studies suggest that these variables had some explanatory power, although further research is needed to determine the extent to which they contribute to variations in roles.

We assumed that institutionalized parties privilege partisan over personal trust. We further assumed that in institutionalized party systems parties will have power of appointment. Parties were thought to have a pool of political cadres that they will seek to appoint to the public sector as apparatchiks, as well as their own pool of party professionals to advise officeholders in the design and implementation of public policy. These assumptions place patronage roles in institutionalized party systems predominantly in the upper quadrants of our typology. In contrast, in weakly institutionalized

party systems trust between patrons and appointees will be personal rather than partisan, placing appointees in the lower quadrants of our typology as programmatic technocrats and political operators.

According to Mainwaring's (2018) scores for party system institutionalization for Latin America (1990–2015), the countries covered in this study are ranked as seen in table C.1. As noted in the introduction, the ranking should be taken with some caution, as party system institutionalization in the region is in a permanent state of flux. However, table C.2, constructed with information from the V-Dem 2019 survey, shows similar results, with Chile, Uruguay, and Mexico as the countries with the most highly institutionalized party systems and Ecuador, and Peru at the bottom (V-Dem 2019).

Findings show that in the three higher-ranked countries in terms of party system institutionalization (Uruguay, Chile, and Mexico), parties were more frequently consulted by officeholders when making appointments than in those lower down the ranking. But it was only in Uruguay that consultation with the ruling party was predominant, and in which partisan trust prevailed over nonpartisan trust, leading to the appointment of more party professionals than programmatic technocrats (Ramos Larraburu, Casa González, and Samudio, this volume). This was not the case in Mexico and Chile, countries in which, although there was consultation with the ruling party or party coalition, programmatic technocrats were still preferred to party professionals (Dussauge-Laguna and Casas; and Moya Díaz and Garrido, both this volume). Consistent with expectations, there was also a relatively large number of apparatchiks appointed in the three countries. Rewarding militants was mentioned as a relevant motivation in Uruguay and Chile but not in Mexico.

Brazil merits separate consideration in terms of the relation between party system institutionalization and patronage roles. As evidenced by the 2019 election, the party system has become less institutionalized and more fragmented. However, there are significant variations in institutionalization at individual party levels. The most institutionalized party by far is the Partido dos Trabalhadores, the party that was in office during the presidency of Dilma Rousseff (2011–2015, 2015–2017). In line with our assumptions, it was expected that during Rousseff's presidency party professionals and apparatchiks would have been the dominant roles. Expectations were not entirely confirmed, as programmatic technocrats and political agents were identified as the majority patronage roles during her two terms in office. Yet, in line with expectations, party professionals and apparatchiks were relatively more numerous in Rousseff's administrations than in those of her successors, al-

though their share of appointments was low and differences between Rousseff on the one hand and Michel Temer's and Bolsonaro's administrations on the other, were small. Also in line with expectations was the high number of political agents identified in the presidency of right-wing populist president Bolsonaro, who was the presidential candidate of the Partido Social Liberal (PSL), a nonprogrammatic catchall party with low levels of institutionalization.

As argued in the introduction, the relations between patronage appointments and party system institutionalization should be studied together with strategies of party building (Shefter 1994; Levitsky et al. 2016). Parties can use patronage appointments to build up their party machines from within the state by appointing party cadres and by co-opting independent appointees to become party cadres. In the latter case, we can expect that appointees' roles that originally fell in the lower quadrants of our category (programmatic technocrats and political operators) will turn into party professionals and apparatchiks during the time of their appointments in the public sector. However, if we consider Argentina, Ecuador, and Peru, the three countries that rank lower in party system institutionalization, it was only in Correa's presidencies in Ecuador (2007–2017) that there was evidence of systematic party building from within the state (Sandoval, this volume). In the case of Peru, the political officeholders' lack of attempts at party building from within the state highlights the marginal roles of political parties in the country, as candidates do not depend on party machines for their electoral campaign, and technocratic networks rather than parties control the public administration (Muñoz and Baraybar, this volume). In the case of Argentina, while it can be assumed that private sector executives and technocrats appointed to the public administration supported the government of Macri's probusiness administration and voted for the ruling party, PRO, there was no evidence that they transitioned to party professionals and apparatchiks to become cadres of the ruling party (Llano, this volume). It is also important to mention in this regard the case of the ruling PSL party during the government of President Bolsonaro in Brazil (Praça, Odilla, and Guedes-Neto, this volume). As mentioned above, at the time of Bolsonaro's election, the PSL was a small, nonprogrammatic catchall party with low levels of institutionalization and internal organization. Yet there was no evidence that Bolsonaro used the public administration to build up a pool of party cadres from within the state.

The cases considered here not only confirm the weakness of political parties in Latin America but also the use of a variety of strategies of governance, electoral campaigning, and party building other than the systematic use of the public sector to build up and reward a large pool of party cadres

to control the state, as is the case of European cartel parties (Katz and Mair 1995, Kopecký and Mair 2006). Arguably, traditional party machines are time-consuming to build, difficult to command, and expensive to maintain. The appointment of programmatic technocrats on the basis of personal trust offers executive officeholders a more flexible alternative to using professional party cadres to secure policy responsiveness. Moreover, the predominance of programmatic technocrats over party professionals may also result from the scarcity of ideologically committed and technically proficient party cadres for filling positions of responsibility within the public sector. Concerning the clientelist dimension of electoral campaigns, this could be processed through the provincial or municipal branches of national parties, or by forming electoral alliances with local politicians and provincial parties, or through the hiring of politically independent local brokers (Novaes 2018). Moreover, the personalistic, top-down nature of political campaigns in the region makes them particularly suitable to the use of new media and other direct forms of communication that do not require large number of “boots on the ground.”

THE STRENGTH AND USES OF PRESIDENTIAL POWERS

We assumed that strong presidents would have more power of appointment, which they would use to control public administration, secure governability, and promote intraparty cohesion. Figure C.1 ranks the presidents' powers between 2000 and 2019 in the countries subject to our study according to V-Dem 2019 survey.

The concept of presidential powers includes legislative, institutional, and party dimensions. There are some significant variations in the powers of presidents throughout the period, as powers are shaped by institutions but are also politically contingent, including elements of agency related to the holder of the presidency and his or her relation with the ruling party. For the purpose of our study some political variables may be more relevant than institutional ones. For example, the V-Dem survey suggests a significant drop in presidential powers in Argentina in 2015, coinciding with the assumption of the presidency by Mauricio Macri, compared to the previous administrations of Néstor Kirchner and Cristina Fernández de Kirchner (2003–2015). The drop may be attributed to Macri's lack of congressional majority. Yet Macri's control over his own party and over the governing coalition still gave the president considerable powers of appointment that he used strategically to attract and appoint private sector managers and technocrats to the upper levels of the federal government (Llano, this volume).

There are some indications that the president's power of appointment was

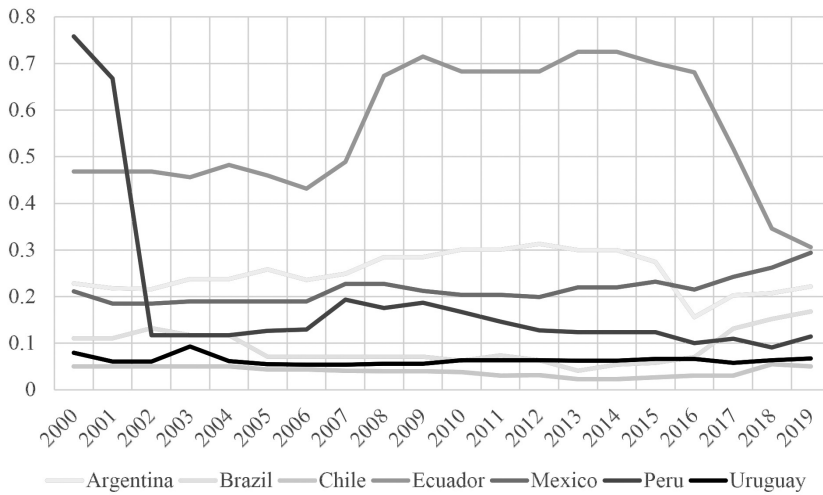


Figure C.1. Presidentialism index, 2000–2019. *Source:* Created by the authors with data from V-Dem 2019 survey

higher in countries with strong presidential systems. The V-Dem index ranks Ecuador, Mexico, and Argentina as the countries in which presidents have stronger powers, and Brazil, Peru, Chile, and Uruguay as the ones in which the power of the president is relatively weaker. In line with our hypothesis, in Ecuador and Mexico presidents enjoyed significant power of appointment, either on their own or in consultation with the ruling party. In the case of Ecuador, almost half of interviewees considered that President Correa made appointments on his own, while over 40 percent stated that the president appointed in consultation with the party and a further 8 percent stated that he “sometimes” consulted the party (Sandoval, this volume). The case of Mexico (Dussauge-Laguna and Casas, this volume) also shows that presidents played a prominent role in patronage appointments, albeit mainly at the higher levels of the administration.

An analysis of presidential powers in Brazil makes evident the complex and relational nature of the president’s powers. As noted by Praça, Odilla, and Guedes-Neto, Brazilian presidents have numerous proactive and reactive powers. Yet these powers do not mean that presidents in Brazil are all-powerful actors who can rule as they see fit (O’Donnell 1994). In Brazil, presidents need to build governmental coalitions and the considerable institutional powers of congress and the courts are strong counterweights to the power of presidents. This balance of forces drives presidents to use pa-

tronage strategically as a resource to hold governmental coalitions together and to take into account requests from parties and individual members of congress to appoint persons of their partisan or personal trust to the high public administration. The case of Chile also merits special consideration. V-Dem places Chile at the bottom of the index but the ranking of Chile is out of line with studies of presidentialism that characterize the country's political system as hyperpresidentialist (Siavelis 2016 and Moya Díaz and Garrido, this volume). Accordingly, the country's survey on patronage shows that presidents rather than parties held the main power of appointment. Presidential powers are moderate in Uruguay compared to other countries of the region (Payne 2006). Institutional constraints combined with a strong party system have limited the autonomy of the president to make patronage appointments without consulting the ruling party and party factions (Ramos Larraburu, Casa González, and Samudio, this volume). Finally, Peru combines relatively weak presidential powers with the weakest party system in the region, resulting in ministerial officeholders having power of appointment autonomously from both the president and the ruling party (Muñoz and Baraybar, this volume).

THE STATE'S BUREAUCRATIC CAPACITY AND THE NORMS THAT REGULATE APPOINTMENTS TO THE PUBLIC SECTOR

We assumed in the introduction that patronage is influenced by the quality of the bureaucracy and by the legal dispositions within which public sector bureaucracies operate. Regarding the quality of the bureaucracy, a well-qualified body of civil servants, particularly at the top of the administrative hierarchy, could make it less necessary to use patronage appointments to draw technical expertise from technoprofessional outsiders. Concerning the legal framework that regulates appointments to the public sector, we suggested that the rigid and ultralegalistic nature of civil service regulations for appointments and promotions could be used politically to justify the use of informal mechanisms to avoid expensive and time-consuming procedures for appointment and promotion rules that reward seniority over merit.

For the quality of the bureaucracy, we used Iacoviello and Strazza's (2014) index of development and index of merit of the civil service in Latin America (figs. C.2 and C.3). The two indexes rank the countries included in this study in similar order. The development index places Chile and Brazil at the top, followed by Uruguay, Mexico, Peru, and Ecuador. In turn, the merit index places Brazil, Uruguay, and Chile at the top, with Mexico, Peru, and Ecuador at the bottom. Argentina was not included in this index, but following the

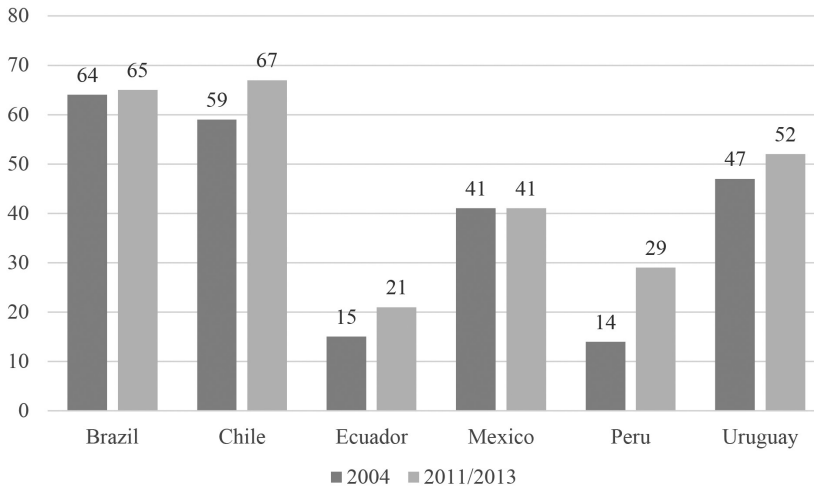


Figure C.2. Index of civil service development, 2004–2011/2013. *Source:* Iacoviello and Strazza (2014)

same methodology, Llano (2016) has assigned Argentina a score of 47 points in the merit index, which places the country between Chile and Mexico and just above the regional average of 42.

The case studies suggest that the technoprofessional capacities of the top civil service influenced patronage appointments. In both Brazil and Chile senior civil servants have their own special regimes (Cargos de Direção e Assessoramento Superiores in Brazil and Sistema de Alta Dirección Pública in Chile) that combine meritocratic criteria with elements of political discretion. The regimes have effectively limited the scope for patronage appointments at the top levels of the administration and have contributed to higher levels of professionalism within the civil service (Praça, Odilla, and Guedes-Neto; and Moya Díaz and Garrido, both this volume). However, the availability of a pool of well-qualified senior civil servants did not eliminate the political actors' quest for trust when choosing top civil servants. This condition was partly contemplated by the introduction of elements of discretion in the mechanisms for appointment, while it also led to the officeholders' use of informal mechanisms, such as the use of temporary appointments, particularly in Chile.

While Mexico is placed at the intermediate level in Iacovello and Strazza's (2014) indexes, arguably the status of the high civil service in the country is closer to that of Chile, Brazil, and Uruguay than that of Argentina. The capabilities of the high civil service in the country have been enhanced by creation

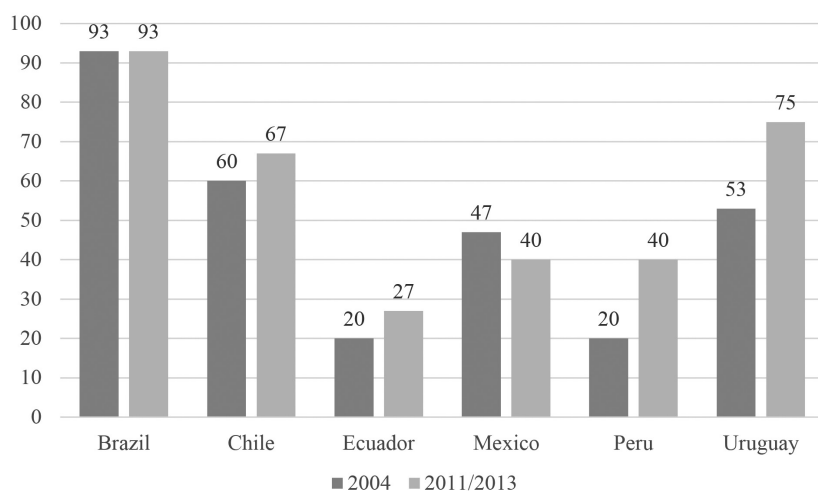


Figure C.3. Civil service merit index, 2004–2011/2013. *Source:* Iacoviello and Strazza (2014)

in 2003 of the federal *Servicio Profesional de Carrera*. The regime introduced the principles of merit and equal opportunities in the federal public service and has contributed to raising the professional standards of the country's high public administration. However, similarly to Chile's *Sistema de Alta Dirección Pública*, the *Servicio Profesional de Carrera* has faced resistance from political officeholders. Politicians have sought to bypass its formal appointment rules through informal mechanisms, such as the overuse of noncompetitive temporary appointments, or have just ignored its dispositions, although recent regulatory changes have sought to minimize these informal practices (Dussauge-Laguna and Casas, this volume).

If the bureaucratic development of the civil service in Mexico places it closer to those at the top of the indexes, that of Argentina has evolved in the opposite direction. As part of attempts at setting up a professional and meritocratic body of high civil servants, the federal government created in 1984 the *Cuerpo de Administradores Gubernamentales* and in 1991 the *Sistema Nacional de Profesionalización Administrativa*, now *Sistema Nacional de Empleo Público*. However, the body of high civil servants and, more broadly, the open competitive system for appointments in the federal central administration were undermined by hyperpoliticization during the Kirchner administrations and by the appointment of private sector managers and technocratic outsiders in Macri administration (Llano, this volume). As Zuvanic and Diéguez (2016, 1) put it: "From early 2002 to the present [2015] high

managerial position appointments have been centrally filled through an essentially political discretionary modality: temporary appointments to high positions in the central public administration" (our translation). While the motivations for appointments and the origins of appointees are a product of the different political orientations of the two administrations, they reflect the political officeholders' deep mistrust of the political neutrality and technical competence of the career civil service, combined with weak rule of law. As a result, only 6 percent of high civil servants in Argentina were appointed through open competition, compared to 68 percent in Brazil and 90 percent in Chile. (Zuñanic and Diéguez 2016, 5).

While appointments on merit tend to be equated with competitive appointments, the case of Uruguay highlights the importance of also taking into account the mechanisms for promotion in the study of the politics of patronage. The country's strong tradition of rule of law (World Bank 2022b) has restricted political officeholders' power to make patronage appointments beyond the legally authorized cargos de confianza. This was reflected in Uruguay's ranking third behind Brazil and Costa Rica in the region's index of merit. Yet, as noted in Ramos Larraburu, Casa González, and Samudio's chapter in this volume, the Weberian features of the civil service in the country were undermined by officeholders' practice of bypassing formal promotion mechanisms in order to promote employees of their partisan or personal trust through the mechanism of *encaragaturas* (provisional appointments).

Peru and Ecuador are at the bottom of Iacoviello and Strazza's (2014) indexes of development and merit. In Peru, the government enacted in 2008 a civil service reform act with the aim of setting up a meritocratic civil service that was complemented with the passing of a civil service law in 2013. The reforms included the creation of a corps of public managers composed of professionally qualified top-level civil servants to be selected through a meritocratic contest (Muñoz and Baraybar, this volume). However, the process of appointment has not been properly followed. As Muñoz and Baraybar put it in their chapter, Peru remains a patronage system in which discretionary appointments remain the main way of accessing positions in the public service. The reasons for the failure to follow the rules of meritocratic appointment are similar to other case studies: First, appointing public servants through the official Contratación Administrativa de Servicios system is a lengthy process that often ends in failure because of the lack of properly qualified candidates. Second, the question of trust comes as a paramount reason for not complying with the competitive processes. However, in contrast to other countries, trust in Peru was not political but personal and technocratic, as patrons were them-

selves parts of technocratic networks that controlled the high civil service and used patronage appointments to accumulate technobureaucratic power.

Finally, the case of Correa's technocratic populism in Ecuador is an example of the tensions between politicization and professionalization characteristic of patronage appointments in Latin America. As Sandoval states in her chapter in this volume, the passing of the new *Ley Orgánica de Servicio Público* in 2010 and the creation of the Instituto Nacional de la Meritocracia in 2011 were part of the Correa administration's attempts at increasing the professional capabilities of an historically professionally weak civil service. This goal materialized in the appointment of a large number of (mainly young) professionals to high and midlevel positions in the public administration. However, the quest for professionalization was undermined by the higher priority assigned by the president to the goal of building up the ruling party from within the public administration, which placed a greater emphasis on political alignments over professional capabilities. The president's project of building a strong party within the context of a weakly institutionalized party system proved unsuccessful. Instead, patronage appointments contributed to building up a network of personal loyalties centered on the president. As a consequence, Alianza PAIS remained a weakly institutionalized party in line with the historical characteristics of the country's party system. As Sandoval further notes, the public sector in Ecuador paid a high price for this strategy in terms of the hyperpoliticization of the public administration, the high turnover of public service personnel, the unsustainable expansion of the public sector, and the weakening of practices of good governance that reproduced the low capacity of the Ecuadorian state (Sandoval, this volume).

CONCLUSIONS

Our comparative study of patronage appointments in Latin America makes a number of contributions to the understanding of the politics of patronage appointments in the region. While studies of public sector appointments have focused on the transactional elements of clientelist exchanges as the key driver for the appointments, we found that trust was by far the main reason why officeholders made patronage appointments. Together with the lack of evidence of mass clientelism in the central public administrations, this suggests a more complex picture of the interface between patronage, politics, and governance at national levels than the blanket label of clientelism. A more rounded understanding of the politics of patronage appointments in Latin America provides the theoretical and empirical bases for bridging the gap between the study of patronage appointments in advanced and emerging

economies: as in other regions of the world, appointments are a tool of governance both in terms of policy design and implementation and of political governability. Patrons use appointments mainly to further their policy initiatives and to control areas of strategic interest in the public administration (Kopecký et al. 2016), and not for politico-electoral reasons.

We must be careful, however, not to be too positive about the role of patronage in Latin America bureaucracies. At the top of the administrative hierarchy patronage may be a mechanism for bringing better qualified people into government, but the effects lower within the system are less clear. And perhaps most importantly, the use of patronage may prevent, or at least slow, the development of Weberian bureaucratic systems in these countries. But, that said, it appears that many countries with Weberian bureaucracies are moving toward more patronage recruitment at the top of the bureaucracy, largely because of issues of personal trust (Savoie 2022).

The finding that in most countries trust was personal rather than partisan may be regarded as confirmation of the weakness of party systems in the region. This finding also suggests that party building through reward of party cadres with state jobs is not always central to patronage appointments. While in Ecuador the ruling Alianza PAIS used public sector appointments to build up the party from within the state, similar attempts were not evident in cases of weakly institutionalized ruling parties in Peru, Argentina (under Macri) and Brazil (under Bolsonaro).

The finding that the capability to design and implement public policies was the main motivation for appointments and that programmatic technocrat was the main role played by appointees highlights the political importance assigned by officeholders to the performance of their governments, irrespective of whether the ruling parties were programmatic or otherwise. As Praça, Odilla, and Guedes-Neto note in relation to president Bolsonaro of Brazil, populists are also interested in policymaking. And the same applies to the administration of populist president Correa of Ecuador.

The above findings show the analytical advantage of disaggregating the category “control” used by studies of patronage appointments (Kopecký, Scherlis, and Spirova 2008). It also shows the analytical power of our typology. As noted in the introduction, controlling policymaking through the appointment of party professionals and programmatic technocrats is different from controlling public sector resources through the appointment of apparatchiks and political agents, and the two should not be conflated. We are not arguing, however, that the predominance of technical over political capabilities in patronage appointments suggests that controlling the public

administration was irrelevant for officeholders. Rather, it could be the case that control can be achieved by appointing a relatively small number of apparatchiks and political agents to strategic positions within the administrative apparatus.

The relative dominance of appointees with technical skills and the lack of evidence of mass clientelism gives support to Grindle's (2012) argument that patronage appointments can be helpful for achieving policy objectives, as well as for ensuring democratic responsiveness and even for increasing the professional capabilities of the public sector. It is also consistent with the findings of the Inter-American Development Bank's survey of the civil service in Latin America that found evidence of progress in the modernization and professionalization of the civil service in the region (Cortázar Velarde and Lafuente 2014, xxii; Iacoviello and Strazza 2014, 52). While the discretionary appointment of technoprosessional personnel may not have been the main driver for the improvement in the quality of the civil service in the region, the technoprosessional skills of appointees may have made a contribution to the quality of policy design and implementation.

Yet resorting to patronage appointments to increase the technoprosessional capabilities of the public administration has a number of drawbacks, some of which are evident from the case studies. This question brings us back to the relations between political trust and professional expertise. As argued by Ramos Larraburu, Casa González, and Samudio (this volume), appointees' dependence on the trust of their patrons undermines their professional autonomy and the ability to offer robust, independent advice. Moreover, the fact that public sector managers owe their jobs to their political patrons makes their positions dependent on their patrons' political careers. As Muñoz and Baraybar note (this volume), if political officeholders lose their jobs, the technocrats discretionally hired by these officeholders usually lose their jobs as well. As a result, the public administration loses institutional memory and policy initiatives are at risk of being discarded by new political officeholders without proper consideration of their merits.

The predominance of patronage appointments at the top and middle levels of the administrative pyramid sets up a two-tiered system with a very low ceiling for tenured career civil servants (and usually low pay, too). Arguably, this is a serious drag on attempts at increasing the capabilities of the state, particularly but not only on the public sector's ability to deliver services on the ground that are necessary to improve the wellbeing of the citizens. A parallel could be made here with the structural heterogeneity of the economies of the countries of the region, in which a thin layer of highly productive

multinational industries at the top combine with a much thicker layer of low productivity, domestic firms with the overall result of the low growth in productivity characteristic of most of the region's economies (Ocampo and Vos 2008). Arguably the same principle applies to the public sector.

Finally, the findings allow us to compare the politics of patronage appointment in Latin America with those of other emerging economies. In a study of public sector hiring in Ghana, Brierley (2021) seeks to address how and why politicians in developing democracies combine patronage and merit in public sector recruitment. In answering the question, Brierley hypothesizes that politicians in low-income countries may support meritocratic recruitment for high-skilled positions that influence state performance, while turning to patronage for appointing party brokers to low-skilled positions. In line with Brierley's argument, our study found that political officeholders in Latin America also prioritize the appointment of technically qualified personnel at the higher levels of the civil service. Yet appointments at this level did not always follow a meritocratic recruitment processes but were based on patronage (in the sense the term is used in this book). At the bottom of the administrative ladder we found less evidence than Brierley finds in Ghana of the systematic use of patronage to reward clientelist party brokers. This could be explained because the countries in our study are all medium-high- and high-income countries (World Bank 2022a), which tend to have lower levels of mass clientelism (Kopecký et al 2016). As noted above, it can also be the case that political brokers tend to be hired by provincial and municipal administrations rather than by the central state (Praça, Odilla, and Guedes-Neto, this volume). The two hypotheses are, of course, not exclusive.¹

This book advances a number of relevant findings about patronage in Latin America. There is, however, still work to be done in order to better understand how patronage operates within different political systems. Although the variables we have identified do appear important for explaining differences in patronage practices, there also seem to be some influences from country contexts. For example, the strength of the party system and a tradition of the rule of law tend to differentiate Uruguay from the other cases. Likewise, the long domination of government in Mexico by the PRI appears to set it apart from countries with less stable pasts. Thus, as in any comparative study, it is crucial to understand the context within which the presumed independent variables are operating.

In addition to the other countries of Latin America and the Caribbean that may have different political histories and administrative systems, we need to systematically compare these findings with countries in Central and Eastern

Europe, Asia (see Kim, Peters, and Knox, forthcoming) and Africa (Brierley 2021) to assess how other transitional countries cope with public personnel challenges. And finally, we have not really answered the “so what” question: Do levels and types of patronage matter for governance?

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